Figure 1. "Pianta che indica le opere fatte, le opere in corso e le opere da fare", trasmessa dall'ing. Lorenzo Allievi, amministratore delegato della Società pel Risanamento di Napoli, 1899 ("Maps of Works to Be Done, Already Done, and in the Making," furnished by the engineer Lorenzo Allievi, CEO of the Naples Risanamento Society, 1899), in Archivio Banca d'Italia (Italian National Bank Archive), Liquidazione della Società del Risanamento (Settlement of the Risanamento Company). Courtesy of the Banca d'Italia Archive

Enclosing the Sea

Remaking Work and Leisure Spaces on the Naples Waterfront, 1870–1900

Marco Armiero

Even when it seems as if a charismatic and all-powerful person—a Haussmann, a Robert Moses, or an Oscar Niemeyer—builds a world with the aim of shaping others to conform to their particular and personal visions and desires, there turns out to be much more to it than just the vision of the person. Class interests, political powers, the mobilization of forces of violence, the orchestration of discourses and public opinion, and the like, are all involved.
—David Harvey, *Spaces of Hope*

In 1998, when the city of Naples had not yet been submerged—literally or journalistically—by a dramatic tide of garbage, a portion of a massive wall that divided the city from its harbor was demolished. At that time, the city was living what had been pompously called its Neapolitan Renaissance (*Rinascimento Napoletano*), an expression indicating the local government's extensive restyling of the urban environment and, above all, of its representations.[1] The demolition of that wall thus formed part of a general embellishment of central Naples and of the narrative of this transformation. "The city is regaining its relationship with the sea," politicians, intellectuals, and commentators recited in the pages of the main local newspapers. No person more august than Naples's mayor could have expressed this vision better: "Our Berlin Wall, which used to divide the city from the sea, is

Radical History Review
Issue 109 (Winter 2011) DOI 10.1215/01636545-2010-013
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Published by Duke University Press

Radical History Review

coming down. I am sure that the Neapolitans will know how to appropriate this regained maritime area."[2]

For those who know Naples and the area in question, and probably for anyone who knows the Berlin Wall, the rhetoric employed would seem pompous indeed. Nevertheless, it was instrumental to an entire narrative about this Mediterranean city's identity, memory, and urban restoration. During the late 1990s, politicians and intellectuals in Naples started to speak about recovering and preserving the memory of the sea and about planning new museums dedicated to the history of maritime activities and emigration.[3] Meanwhile, in the Bagnoli area on the western side of the city's bay, the definitive closure of a gigantic steel plant opened up encouraging prospects for the tourist redevelopment of the seashore to what it had been before the plant had been built.[4] Again, after a long oblivion, the sea and its memories would return to Neapolitan shores.[5] Yet after more than ten years with no new maritime or migration museum, Bagnoli is still waiting for its messianic regeneration; one suspects that Neapolitans have been unable to appropriate either the virtual or the real maritime spaces that the narrative promised.

In this essay, my goal is not to discuss why so many projects intended to recover the maritime character of the city—whatever that might be—have come to naught. Rather, my goal is to understand the origins and implications of these narratives about reappropriating maritime spaces as strategies of urban regeneration and beautification. Such narratives are not recent inventions; they are the result of a long-standing cultural process that has involved reshaping both nature/work and nature/property relations. When city elites and opinion makers talk about regaining the sea, they usually mean that it is no longer part of the urban living experience and that its relationship with the city needs rescuing. But one might wonder, from what or whom? Moreover, is it correct to speak of a generic relationship, without making any reference to the quality of this connection?

The bond between urban economic life and the sea is not just a matter relegated to the past. It is no accident, for instance, that Roberto Saviano's shocking accusation leveled at the Neapolitan Mafia started precisely in the city harbor, the hub of wild globalization controlled by the criminal network.[6] Historically, the steel plant in Bagnoli had very close ties to the sea, having even shaped the coastline. Anything but separation would describe the sea and the people of many of the historical districts. Among the maritime neighborhoods, fishers, sailors, porters, fishmongers, smugglers, and many other laborers relied on their daily connections to the sea. Work lies at the very core of this relationship. Yet this was not what the narrative on regaining the sea sought.

Reappropriating natural spaces has always been embedded in a dichotomist discourse on nature versus work. As Richard White has shown, the dichotomy between nature and work has historically been popular in Western culture; work clearly exploits and transforms nature, but according to this vision, this transforma-

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tion constitutes a sacrilege rather than a way to be connected to nature. At least since the Industrial Revolution, work and living spaces, unhealthy and hideous, have been segregated from spaces of nature, healthy and splendid. The zoning that organized cities and regions into industrial areas, natural parks, and upper-, middle-, and working-class neighborhoods reinforced this vision of work-nature relationships. According to White, environmentalist cultures have often reinforced this dichotomy, mythologizing nature without work and, conversely, demonizing work itself, especially the hard, physical work involved in transforming resources.[7] To be worthy of protection and admiration, nature must be set free from work, which needs to be concealed from view and erased from even the memory of the landscape. As Raymond Williams puts it, "Some forms of this popular modern idea of nature seem to me to depend on the suppression of the history of human labor, and the fact that they are often in conflict with what is seen as the exploitation or destruction of nature may in the end be less important than the no less certain fact they often confuse us about what nature and the natural are and might be."[8]

This process of suppression and exclusion does not concern just ideas and concepts but also flesh-and-blood people, since erasing work from the landscape has meant concretely expelling them from such places. In the Neapolitan case, the removal of workers and their practices of using and knowing nature did not stop the exploitation of nature, which occurred in other forms. Theodore Steinberg has stressed the need for environmental historians to scrutinize the deep-rooted connection between nature and property.[9] Following Karl Polanyi and Karl Marx, Steinberg focuses on the transformation of nature into commodities that can be owned or sold.[10] In his opinion, this was "the driving force behind the significant shifts in species diversity, soil fertility, and atmospheric conditions," that is, behind the socio-ecological transformation of the environment.[11] Thus nature has been incorporated into the socioeconomic system through work in its social forms of organization, which include property rights over both human and nonhuman nature. Hence this essay explores how, in the case of the Neapolitan waterfront, the dichotomist discourse on work versus nature affected property regimes and ways of using spaces and resources while relying on the rhetoric of nature's purity/beauty and the expulsion of workers through the privatization of spaces.

The remaking of the Neapolitan maritime neighborhoods in the late nineteenth century offers an excellent case study through which to understand the connections among narratives on sanitization, beauty, work, and the enclosure of the sea. Generally, the debate on common property has focused on land or on rural environments; the sea and the city have never seemed places for either common property or enclosures. Yet several studies on maritime communities around the world have revealed that even a natural space so seemingly hostile to any kind of boundary has forms of common access, a concept that implies a perception of the coastal sea as a commons.[12] This held true not only for members of traditional fish-

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ing communities. Even in the city, fishers reclaimed their rights to manage the seashore and to gain access to the waterfront. Once again it was Steinberg who called attention to the urban commons, observing its correlation with the processes of sanitization that have occurred in most Western cities in the past two centuries.[13]

This correlation between urban commons and sanitization was extremely evident in nineteenth-century Naples when, during a series of cholera epidemics, the city council and the national government decided to sanitize the maritime districts. The by-products of this massive urban transformation were the removal of fishers and the conversion of poor neighborhoods into residential and leisure areas for the middle and upper classes. The seashore shifted from a place of work, deeply connected to a special mode of production and living, to a place of leisure. Here the removal of any trace of human labor was a precondition for restoring beauty and hygiene. While the sanitization discourse aimed to divide these two realms, the narrative of the picturesque proposed an alternative vision that attempted to reconcile work and nature.

In this essay I envision the picturesque as the Mediterranean version of the "machine in the garden" rhetoric, but with a stronger link to people, since it was human work rather than technology that the discourse emphasized.[14] Yet the supporters of the picturesque ultimately lost their battle, since sanitization affirmed a strict segregation between the space of work and the space of living well. Of course, this good life would have been for just a few people. Since sanitization implied the expulsion of poor people, it also entailed the end of the common regime of access to the sea. Adopting a political ecology approach, this essay will consider these unequal social effects of sanitization as coherent results of a strategy targeting the lower classes and their shared commons rather than as side effects of a strong treatment aiming to sanitize the city. Enclosure, privatization, and the expulsion of the poor were the goals of sanitation discourse, and in the case of fishers, the mission was largely accomplished.

The Beautiful, the Dirty, and the Picturesque: Imagining an Urban Sea

According to legend, Naples was founded in the spot where the siren Parthenope died, in the waters of the city harbor. Apart from the dark symbolism of a dead body serving as a city's foundation, the legend links the city to its sea, transposing onto a mythical level what was indeed the historical root of settlement, the arrival of colonists from the eastern Mediterranean. Since then, the sea has played a considerable role in Neapolitan urban identity and, above all, in its narration. It is no accident that the stereotypical image of the city, produced and reproduced by travelers and artists, includes a vision of the bay: the sun, the sea, and Vesuvius remain essential ingredients in the city's canonical iconography. In the mid–nineteenth century a foreigner traveling in Naples wrote: "The coastal strip from Capo Miseno to Salerno,

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that is, the bay of Naples and half the Bay of Salerno, is indisputably the most beautiful part of Italy, and one of the most beautiful in the world."[15]

However, the sea was not just the gate to the "paradise of devils"—this was the common definition for Naples—or the frame for a typical postcard.[16] The sea did not stay out of the city, but entered its streets, squares, and buildings and created hybrid neighborhoods. Nevertheless, the maritime districts—namely Chiaia, Porto, Mercato, Pendino, Santa Lucia, and Posillipo—had rather different characters, and the dominating presence of the sea did not level out the variety of social relationships with it, nor did the sea homogenize the narratives about these areas and their inhabitants. The dichotomous distinction between work spaces and leisure spaces was crucial in this diversification among maritime districts; in some areas the sea was simply part of the scenery of a beautiful promenade for tourists and upper-middle-class residents, as in Chiaia, with its city park built on the old beach, and on the Posillipo Hills. Yet elsewhere the sea was still part of lower-class social and economic life, as in Santa Lucia and Porto.

Although the segregation between those spaces and those visions of urban nature could seem severe, matters were actually very confused until the mid-nineteenth century. Indeed, Santa Lucia was a major destination for Grand Tour travelers during their visits to Naples, despite the district's filth and chaos. As the Italian anthropologist Alessandra Broccolini puts it, Santa Lucia became a mirror in which the ancient Greek roots of the city were reflected in the very faces of fishers and their families.[17] Stratified in the urban soil and in the genes of the fishers, the noble Greek origins of the city found their home in Santa Lucia or, rather, in the narratives about that area and its inhabitants. Among its narrow alleys and in the sun-baked faces of its fishers, northern European travelers thought they recognized the primitive design of both the city and its first inhabitants. If Santa Lucia was the city's cradle, it was a chaotic one, the stage for a folk comedy rather than a Greek tragedy. It was even possible to rent chairs in the street to comfortably admire the spectacle of folk life, framed in a historical and natural landscape made by the sea, the medieval castle dominating the area, and the view of the entire bay.

The picturesque was the key to appreciating Santa Lucia and its combination of natural beauty and human activities, an appreciation that, instead of segregating work and nature, sought to blend them.[18] At the end of the nineteenth century, Matilde Serao, a well-known Neapolitan writer and journalist,[19] offered a description of Santa Lucia based on this picturesque canon: "Nothing [is] more picturesque than Santa Lucia, the exclusive property of the *signori* fishers and sailors, weavers of fish-traps and sellers of oysters."[20]

Santa Lucia was the very essence of the picturesque. In eighteenth- and nineteenth-century iconography, the image of Naples was inextricably linked to this ancient fishers' village,[21] where everything—folk traditions and jobs, religion

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and dialect, and even political allegiance—was deeply marked by the presence of the sea.[22] Most descriptions of nineteenth-century Santa Lucia stressed the picturesque character of this neighborhood;[23] in the 1880s the *Illustrazione italiana* (*Italian Illustration*), a popular magazine of the time,[24] published a series of articles on Santa Lucia. Here a description from one: "There is no other street which can be considered more Neapolitan in character than Santa Lucia. . . . A carriage is stopped in front of the Albergo Roma . . . a group of kids is playing in the street; a sailor is sleeping on the bastion . . . ; two English ladies are running away from a child who wants them to buy an enormous bouquet; an *acquafrescaio* invites clients."[25]

To represent Santa Lucia, the magazine published an illustration depicting a women's brawl, with chairs raining from the windows; maybe the place was picturesque, but in the 1880s the pendulum of cultural sensitivity was shifting toward other visions, leaving very little room for the fashion of dirt and chaos.[26] In fact, despite the celebrations of the picturesque, the *Illustrazione italiana* had started its series of articles dedicated to Santa Lucia with the unequivocal lines: "*Delenda Carthago* [Carthage must be destroyed]! Naples will never be civilized, tamed, or great with these filthy areas in which . . . the germs of crime, social plague, and ignorance have their hideouts."[27] The time had come to sanitize old Naples.

Infection and Sanitization

Although it was fishers, peddlers, fishmongers, *acquafrescai*, oyster-sellers, brawling women, and dirty kids that allegedly gave special color to Santa Lucia, at the end of the nineteenth century it was a singular microscopic inhabitant of these maritime districts that became the most significant agent of identity and transformation: *Cholera vibrio*. Though the unhealthiness of Naples became notorious with the 1884 epidemic, there had been twelve others—eight of cholera and four of typhoid—during the preceding fifty years. Until 1885, Naples did not seem to be a very healthy city.[28] While these numbers cannot tell the whole story of the epidemics, the death rate in each neighborhood shows the impact of cholera on the urban population more clearly.

Table 1. Number of deaths in the nineteenth-century Neapolitan cholera epidemics

1836–37	23,472
1855	1296
1866	2389
1873	1312
1874	7018
1884	7143

Source: Giuseppe Russo, *Napoli come città* (Naples: Edizioni Scientifiche Italiane, 1966), 265.

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Table 2. Mortality rates according to neighborhood

Neighborhoods	Deaths per 1,000 inhabitants		
	1836	1873	1884
San Ferdinando*	8.30	0.62	3.75
Chiaia*	15	1.53	4.42
San Giuseppe	10.80	1.27	9.56
Montecalvario	6.90	1.31	4.09
Avvocata	4.30	0.88	2.46
Stella	5.40	1.81	4.40
San Carlo all'Arena	11.70	1.23	6.02
Vicaria	9.70	2.37	16.71
San Lorenzo	9.40	1.30	5.47
Pendino*	17.70	4.01	24.96
Mercato*	18.90	5.14	30.86
Porto*	38.60	4.96	22.70

* Maritime neighborhoods

Sources: Russo, *Napoli come città*, 280; Frank M. Snowden, *Naples in the Time of Cholera 1884–1911* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1995), 107.

Some parts of the city—namely, Pendino, Mercato, and Porto—were more exposed to epidemics than others, even if more detailed data might show the existence of poor and highly infected enclaves also in other neighborhoods such as the Santa Lucia area in San Ferdinando District. Many sources confirmed this impression; two medical reports, one written in the 1830s, the other in the 1860s, depicted the same districts—plus the subareas of Mergellina and Santa Lucia—as the dirtiest in the city and, consequently, as the most unhealthy and receptive to any kind of disease.[29] Hence, the nineteenth-century cholera epidemics in Naples followed a regular routine, always infecting certain parts of the urban body more than others. As a matter of fact, throughout the century, mortality rates correlated with poverty in Naples.

Geographically, the areas most affected by cholera were those along the coast, where most of the fishers and the other social groups dependent on the sea for their livelihood were concentrated, and where urban infrastructure, especially sewers and fresh drinking water, were scarce or nonexistent. The high concentration of people living in those maritime areas was another significant factor behind the spread of epidemics. In her study of the 1836 cholera outbreak, the Italian historian Annalucia Forti Messina remarks that the Porto, Pendino, and Mercato quarters, practically built on the ancient beach,[30] were the most populous in the city, with a density of 120,000 inhabitants per kilometer.[31] The situation did not change in the second half of the nineteenth century; according to Frank Snowden's data, in 1884 the 64,000 people who lived in a Naples square kilometer became 130,000 in those boroughs around the sea, in the lower city.[32]

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Table 3. The population of Naples in maritime districts throughout the nineteenth century

Districts	1829	1880
Chiaia	27,284	36,611
Porto	36,569	38,487
Mercato	52,352	55,538
Pendino	30,923	34,895
San Ferdinando	N/A	36,985
City	357,237	535,206*

* Data from the 1880 general census

Sources: Giuseppe Talamo, "Napoli da Giuseppe Bonaparte a Ferdinando II" ("Naples from Joseph Bonaparte to King Ferdinand II"), in *Storia di Napoli: Storia politica ed economica*, (*History of Naples: Political and Economic History*) vol. 5 (Bari: Società Editrice Storia di Napoli, 1976), 173; Frank M. Snowden, *Naples in the Time of Cholera, 1884–1911*, 107.

If we superimpose the map of the areas most affected by the nineteenth-century cholera epidemics onto the areas with the highest density of sailors and fishers, we find that they coincide almost perfectly.[33] Thus it is hardly surprising that these recurrent outbreaks and the resulting quest for urban and social sanitization strategies radically changed the perception of these coastal spaces and the human universe revolving around them. As Martin Melosi has explained, reformers tended to associate environmental chaos with social pathologies. Therefore, to restore the city, one needed to take action not only with regard to reforming its infrastructures (sewers, aqueducts, and buildings) but also with regard to reforming or eliminating its inhabitants, often described as members of uncivilized "tribes" living in primitive enclaves in the urban fabric.[34]

Table 4. Percentage of sailors and fishers in local demographic samples

Year	Chiaia	S. Ferdinando	Pendino	Porto	Mercato	Average
1831	7.9	5.5	1.3	3.3	3.64	4.328
1851	7.6	3.4	1	1.9	4.6	3.7
1871	7.4	1.8	0.3	0.3	4.4	2.84
1891	5	2.8	1	0.4	6	3.04
1911	1.9	0.8	0.7	1	4.7	1.82

Source: Alida Clemente, "Il mare e la città. Comunità pescherecce e trasformazione urbana nella Napoli contemporanea"("The Sea and the City. Fishing Communities and Urban Transformation in Contemporary Naples"), *Società e storia* 97 (2002): 557.

Although the sea clearly shaped people's professions, lifestyle, culture, and language, we still do not know much about these city fishers.[35] Research has usually focused on easily identifiable fishing communities, but rarely on those settled

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in urban environments. So what explains this crusade against the *lazzari del mare* (plebeians of the sea)? As we have seen, in the late nineteenth century, an idyllic picturesque vision of maritime life, full of barefoot *lazzari* and expert fishers, gave way to the denouncement of the dreadful conditions of life in those areas of the city. Naples had started to become an open-air laboratory for a new season of sociological inquiries: intellectuals, journalists, and philanthropists roamed the city's narrow alleys, painting harsh pictures of the urban misery they found. Even before materializing in the Haussmann method of massive urban renewal projects, the dissection of what was seen as the sick urban body started with these inquiries as liberal governmentality arrived in the Neapolitan streets to gather and deploy statistical and social knowledge.[36]

The cholera epidemic of 1884 accelerated the political effects of these discourses on social and urban sanitization, culminating in a special law for the city's regeneration, the *Risanamento*.[37] Yet the process had started long before that; indeed, since the 1870s, policy makers, engineers, intellectuals, and physicians had been speaking about replanning the lower city and renegotiating the relationship between the city and its sea. In one of the most influential reports on Naples published in the late 1870s, for example, the Tuscan intellectual Renato Fucini described the caves of Santa Lucia as dens from which ghosts, not people, emerged from the darkness. One appalling scene of "a little girl sleeping in the darkness on a pile of garbage, with insects on her cheeks," was meant to inflame the reader's imagination.[38] In 1877, the English writer and philanthropist Jessie White Mario described the poor areas using the same horrified tone: "This *fondaco* had a hole in the wall in every room. And all these holes drain into the black well, which is a close friend to the water well. . . . In one of the attics I saw a heap of straw moving around; I thought it was due to the ants, but they were other kind of vermin indeed.[39]

In all these narratives, Naples epitomizes of the whole south of the country—socially and biologically sick, with the only possible cure being the reformation of both people and the environment. Both were framed as porous entities, seeping into one another, so as to affect individual and social bodies, landscapes, and behavior. As the Neapolitan city councilor Teodosio de Bonis put it in an 1884 report on postcholera sanitization, "Too often experts and decision makers looked for the causes of urban illness in the wrong places, failing to see them in the everyday living environment."[40]

Toward a Political Ecology of Sanitization

Visiting the poor neighborhoods infected by cholera, the Italian prime minister Agostino Depretis pronounced a phrase soon to become the motto of Neapolitan sanitization: "Naples must be gutted." Not satisfied with this already quite aggressive expression, the king of Italy added: "Gutting will not be enough; in many places, Naples must be razed to the ground."[41] Some considered the king's attitude to be

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both kindhearted and martial.[42] While the former quality is rather hard to discern, the warlike character of the latter is indisputable. Sanitizing Naples would indeed be a war. However, the enemies were not just *Cholera vibrio*, ruined buildings, narrow alleys, and dirt. Following Erik Swyngedouw's and Nikolas C. Heynen's arguments, we can envision the sanitization of the Naples waterfront as a struggle in which politics rather than technology shaped the face of urban environments, thus challenging the presumption that the process of transforming the waterfront was simply a series of political or technological solutions to a sanitary problem.[43] Analyzing power and class relationships does not suggest that sanitization processes were ill conceived or ineffective in improving health conditions. Rather, it simply suggests that sanitation strategies were not socially neutral; not everybody gained from them. As Matthew Klingle has written with regard to such practices in nineteenth- and twentieth-century Seattle, "Targeting a 'natural' problem often involves targeting a specific group and a particular place."[44] In the Neapolitan context, the focus on the waterfront meant that sanitization targeted urban spaces and social groups deeply implicated in the concept of the "natural." And in the middle of a nineteenth-century city crowded with half a million inhabitants, nothing appeared so natural or so wild as the sea and the fishers.

While the narrative of social inquiry represented Neapolitan fishers as being morally and bodily infected and contagious, another kind of narrative portrayed them as unable to use maritime resources wisely. For some, they were "vandals of the sea," thieves of its resources. Writing in 1870, for example, Achille Costa, a professor of zoology at the University of Naples, blamed local fishers for the shortage of marine produce in the bay since they aimed solely at an immediate profit, using tools and techniques harmful to the fish stock.[45] Another scholar followed the same idea by defining Neapolitan fishers as "barbarians."[46] In 1904, David Levi Morenos, a professor and expert on fishery, offered an excellent summary of this rhetoric on fishers' shortcomings: "Imagine an earthly paradise in which at every season of the year the corn, the grapes, fruits of all sorts are ripe and ready. And around those fields, with no walls or hedges to protect them, . . . imagine a hungry crowd of workers who rush to complete the only job required of this magic land, which needs no sowing or digging, but needs only to be harvested."[47] Here Morenos offers a prescient image of enclosure that foreshadows the ideas of Garrett Hardin sixty years later, choosing to hide the stratification of common rules and practices employed by groups of fishers to regulate their access to particular maritime spaces and the associated biological resources.

Yet even in urban environments, maritime neighborhoods preserved sets of rules and practices that can be considered typical of commons.[48] Joan Martinez Alier emphasizes that fisheries are a perfect example of the contradictions between open access and common management, regulated by groups of fishers.[49] This thesis is confirmed by the extensive empirical research conducted by scholars such as Rob Van Ginkel, Alvaro Díaz de la Paz, and Jesús Giráldez Rivero.[50] In nineteenth-

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century Naples, groups of fishers, organized on the basis of locality and church associations, the common use of tools, and biological target zones, envisioned the sea and the waterfront as common property; therefore they controlled—or at least tried to control—access to the commons and the introduction of new tools, challenging fishers from other areas who sought to enter "their" maritime spaces. A good example is the case of the Confraternity Santa Caterina dell'Arte, a religious association of fishers from the Porto District, one of the areas most affected by cholera and hence by sanitization.[51] The group established the size and shape of tools, fishing seasons, the size and weight requirements of the catch, and, finally, imposed fines for infringements. When those from other districts sought to break those rules, reactions were quite severe, including the burning of boats or even shootings.[52]

Even more than the sea itself, it was the waterfront that was needed and used as a commons. Fishers generally stayed close to the coast, employing boats and tools that required land, good beaches for storage, and maintenance. It was precisely a long, sandy shore, covered with boats and nets, that was lodged in the memory of Benedetto Croce, the famous Italian historian and philosopher, when he sought to recall the image of the Neapolitan waterfront before the huge nineteenth-century transformation.[53] For Croce, the waterfront was the prototype of an unusual hybrid scenery, mixing bucolic and maritime topoi, a landscape simply erased by modernity. Nevertheless, what Croce did not see, nor was interested in seeing, were the material relationships connecting people with their environment. Nets and boats on the seashore were not just part of a picturesque postcard scene; they were occupants of a hybrid urban-natural space that followed local rules, turns, and hierarchies, reinforcing the idea of the waterfront as a common space for work. The fishers' very existence as a group of allied workers relied on the existence of those common spaces and their free access. Hence sanitization initiated a veritable war between conserving the right to common spaces and resources and "freeing" them from work and workers, which actually meant both privatizing and gentrifying them.

As a war, sanitization did not happen without resistance or confrontation. The staunchest opponents of urban renovation were the fishers themselves. For them, the sanitizing of the city would mean not only expulsion from their homes but also the breaking of their bonds with the sea and, most important, the loss of their main source of subsistence. A few sensational episodes of rebellion, probably a small sample of these communities' widespread aversion to the new shape the city was assuming in spite of them, document their resistance. As stated by Swyngedouw and Heynen, "the material production of environments is necessarily impregnated by the mobilization of particular discourses and understandings (if not ideologies) of and about nature and the environment."[54] This was what happened in nineteenth-century Naples, where the remaking of the waterfront became the opportunity for a wider debate about nature and beauty. The city council was the arena for this discussion where those who defended the beauty of the seaside neighborhoods were often the same who took the side of fishers and of their common access to the sea. One

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example is Councillor Enrico Cenni's protest against the construction of the new Via Caracciolo, the seafront boulevard running alongside the Villa Comunale, the city park, in the 1870s: "[That plan] despoils this area of a special beauty admired by citizens and foreigners alike. A gently curving sandy beach lapped by the waves of the sea is replaced by a straight-running street of Vesuvian stone. And we know that straight-running streets are never recommended for their beauty."[55]

The plan in question was in fact part of a long process of transformation of the Chiaia seafront, begun in 1778 when King Ferdinand IV ordered the construction of the Villa Comunale.[56] This feature of urban decoration had already penalized local communities making a living from the sea. Although the *passeggio reale* (the royal stroll), as the promenade built along the shore was called, had spared a portion of the beach for the use of fishers, there had been uprisings against construction work that threatened the traditional activities of both men and women (especially fishers and washers).[57] In Cenni's speech a century later, the preservation of the landscape's beauty was commensurate with his staunch defense of the fishers' rights to continue to use the sea as their source of subsistence. According to Cenni, the city council had no right "to deprive the fishers of their right to exercise their profession on those beaches because rights of commons are, by their very nature, irrevocable."[58] For Cenni, the possibility of both enjoying the landscape and harnessing the sea as a biological resource was complementary through the concept of the picturesque, connecting two seemingly irreconcilable perspectives.

Of course, the sentimental image of the urban picturesque has long been one associated with the problem of Otherness; as Carrie Tirado Bramen has argued in her discussion of U.S. cities, the picturesque transforms diversity into "an aesthetic spectacle."[59] Nevertheless, the politics of the picturesque in the double narrative about sanitization and the commons has a peculiar specificity in the Neapolitan case, since the term referred to the general vision of Italian nature and its relationship to national memory. No traveler would have come to Italy looking for "pure" nature, such as wilderness. Rather, a landscape with ruins had become the canonical representation of Italian nature. In the case of the Neapolitan waterfront, those ruins "lived"; they were people embodying the memory of the past through their ways of working and living. The picturesque was the Mediterranean version of the pastoral narrative aiming to reconcile the garden and the machine in industrial countries. In rural Italy, where machinery was not invasive, the picturesque intended to reconnect work and beauty, the human and the natural landscape. Indeed, one could not conceive of the seafront without boats pulled ashore, nets spread out to dry, and half-naked boys gathering mollusks.[60] In these contexts, work formed part and parcel of the landscape and was central to what made it beautiful. This logical-aesthetic line of reasoning, a certain image of the sea and, especially, of the city's seacoast, competed with another one based on different needs and perspectives (see table 1).

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Table 5. Remaking the waterfront through two opposite logical-aesthetic lines of reasoning

I) Beauty →	The picturesque →	Communal use →	Letting the fishers stay
		"Private use"	
		↑	
II) Modernity →	Filth/hygiene →	Beauty	
		↓	
		"Expelling the fishers"	

In the logical line of reasoning leading from beauty to communal use (I), beauty is a natural feature. In part II of the table, however, beauty is transformed from a preexisting natural category into a product, the result of the management of urban spaces and of social stratification. In such a formulation, only modernity and hygiene, along with an accentuated class-based zoning of the city, can produce beauty. As one of the city councilors put it, "Should we refrain from giving another shape to that beach just because centuries ago it was beautiful?"[61] Two other councilors added that neither "rags and nets" nor "barefoot and half-naked people" should be included any longer in what was the most beautiful landscape of the city.[62] Thus, if modernity is the key to understanding the second approach, the concept of the picturesque played a decisive role in the first vision, which considered beauty a gift of nature, rather than as a by-product of modernization. The idea that beauty could manifest itself even in disorder restored dignity to the chaotic life of the alleys of Santa Lucia and of the Chiaia beach. In other words, these places were not beautiful *in spite of* humans and their work, but *because of* the blending of culture with nature, of work with the landscape.

The merging of work and natural beauty in the picturesque narrative implied the reevaluation of the waterfront as a commons and the option to protect common uses rather than implement privatization and gentrification. In a parliamentary inquiry promoted to investigate the *Risanamento* project and the local government,[63] for instance, one researcher observed that "during the *Risanamento*, no study was carried out on the poor who were forced to leave their demolished homes. Hence there were no provisions that would have given them the opportunity to move to better areas and apartments."[64] But the absence of both a comprehensive understanding of the poor situation and of specific measures to help them was speculation, not a mistake. The contractors were supposed to build twenty thousand square meters of affordable housing for the "refugees" expelled from the sanitized neighborhoods, but they simply did not. Instead, they preferred to build many more houses for middle-class citizens, thereby doubling the square footage originally allocated to that group.[65] Yet the city government did not hold them accountable for this; as the Italian historian Marcella Marmo pointed out, giving a free hand to the entrepreneurs was the city's way to avoid making contributions to the cost of

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construction and at the same time sustaining the value of urban property for the elite.[66] Indeed, local government did more than just this; it extended the privileges for sanitization and public works (expropriation and tax exemption) to all kinds of construction projects, thereby canceling out the clauses on the percentage of land reserved for new buildings, as well as those on the percentage of buildings reserved for the lower classes.

The extension of special benefits and the neglect of any political supervision over the implementation of the plan were the incentives the local government offered to private investors, with the assumption that private profits would lead to the common good. It is not surprising, then, that affordable houses soon disappeared. Furthermore, even reserving houses for the poor did not necessarily mean that the poor actually benefited. According to one survey, false claimants occupied over one-third of the 1,060 houses built for the poor.[67] As a result of sanitization poor areas thus became even more crowded than before; those unable to afford the new, modern, hygienic houses were forced to share the old buildings excluded from urban renovation. According to the Neapolitan playwright Salvatore Di Giacomo, who wrote a guide to the city in 1913, immediately after the *Risanamento*, the economic subsidies for the poor expelled by sanitization were simply used for short-term survival, while members of the middle class received the new affordable apartments on the basis of political allegiance rather than income.[68] With more than thirty-five thousand destitute inhabitants moved from the sanitized districts, the *Risanamento* meant deportation on a massive scale. That the *Risanamento* left several secondary alleys overcrowded while gentrifying the sanitized spaces appears clear even in some celebrative descriptions, such as one from an 1892 issue of the *Illustrazione italiana*: "From Amedeo District to the Chiaia Waterfront—apart from a few alleys where people from the maritime area of Chiaia have found their hideout—we can find a cleanliness that makes us happy. . . . Here are new elegant buildings and rich villas; there, other buildings have been tidied up; many of them have been embellished; others were just rebuilt."[69]

If the economic activities of the lower classes have always been deeply rooted in the spaces of daily life, this has held especially true for professions dependent on fixed resources such as those connected to the sea. Pasquale Villari, the most perceptive observer of Naples as a national social issue, wrote in 1884: "A multitude of fishers is crammed into Santa Lucia, because they can just cross the road and get to the sea. Hence it is not only a matter of bad habits; rather there are good reasons linking those people to the places where they live. Anyone can understand that it will not be possible to take them away from those areas."[70] But Villari was, in fact, wrong: the sanitization of the waterfront did not stop at the fishers' boats or nets. Although the projects included both affordable houses and infrastructure for fishers, in point of fact sanitization simply transformed those areas into tourist and upper-class districts that did not leave any spaces for people or for common uses. In the

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case of the remaking of the Chiaia waterfront in the 1870s, for example, not only did housing become too expensive but all fishing infrastructure was dismantled. While fishers had always used the beach as a storage space for their boats and tackle, the new project transformed the beach into a large promenade with an inadequate fishing harbor, which was later destroyed by a storm in 1879. In Santa Lucia, where renovation included the construction of a small fishing harbor, the city council gave the beach to a private concession that established a seaside resort, Eldorado. And like every version of Eldorado around the world, this one was also immediately enclosed by a concrete wall to keep out nonmembers.[71]

Few contemporary observers were able to envision the long-term effects of urban regeneration on the special relationship between fishers and nature, above all in terms of the privatization of the commons. Rather, they preferred either to celebrate the virtues of sanitization or to lament the end of the picturesque. It was no accident, for instance, that among the few opponents of the *Risanamento* were several painters, such as Vincenzo Migliaro, Eduardo Dalbono, Antonio Mancini, and Giuseppe Casciaro, who hastened to capture picturesque glimpses of the old city before they disappeared.[72] Dalbono's reaction to the transformation of the seaside can be considered emblematic of the whole group's attitude: "Rascals! That avenue was a masterpiece . . . a masterpiece made by Nature. And now look what they are doing. . . . Here, in Naples we have the sky, sun, and sea from paradise. Foreigners have always envied us these things. But no, we must change everything. They say: it is for hygiene. So, we have transformed Santa Lucia into a bike path and the Villa Comunale into an enclosure for the illustrious dead.[73]

Similarly, the Neapolitan playwright Raffaele Viviani made this point in his work "Pescatori" ("Fishers"): the signori, the rich, were appropriating the whole waterfront for their houses, destroying fishers' poor shacks and expelling them from the areas.[74] And the poet Ferdinando Russo, who dedicated several of his works to Santa Lucia and its people, wrote a poem titled "O'sventramento" ("Gutting"):

Just three days sick with some fever! . . .
And immediately they come and boss you around!
First, the engineer comes and he measures everything,
After that he takes your stuff out of your home and sends the workers to demolish it!
And now where can we go, my friend?
Here they are building houses for rich people!
I wish all of you will be sick soon! I wish all of you will die under these new buildings![75]

The battle of these artists in some ways resembles the battle conducted by the group of intellectuals who rallied around Croce's journal *Napoli nobilissima* (*Noblest Naples*), fighting in those years to preserve special pieces of art from the

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purifying destruction of the *Risanamento*. As the historian of architecture Cesare De Seta has asserted, many of these intellectuals, while lamenting the end of a world, were also inclined to accept the ideology of the *Risanamento* and fell into line. They were convinced that the victory of the "comfortable life" over nature was unavoidable; they simply needed to salvage a few fragments of a defeated world.[76] The strategies of sanitization were not just threatening the portals and churches defended by the journal; rather, an entire lifestyle was disappearing, and a unique mode of production that enabled interactions between marine and urban ecosystems was coming to an end. Although discussions appear to have focused particularly on the aesthetic aspects of these transformations, the rights of a commons over the environmental resources of the city were at stake. Steinberg, for instance, has recently called attention to the existence of a commons regime even in urban realities, referring to the role of horses and pigs in waste recycling and in the diet of the lower classes.[77] Joanna Dyl has adopted the same approach in studying the suppression of chicken coops in San Francisco as a sanitization policy following the plague of 1907.[78] Thus the sanitizing of cities, notably the crusade against herding in the city's streets, has had repercussions not just for the city's organic cycle but also for working-class means of subsistence.

The case of the sea is interpretable along similar lines. Fishers had free access to the biological resources of the city's sea, but the condition for this access was the occupation and full availability of the spaces bordering the sea. Without a beach on which to land and mend nets, without the proximity of living and working spaces, this freedom became purely theoretical. The urban renovation plans conceived in the second half of the nineteenth century undermined the idea of the city's sea as having multiple uses and meanings. To turn the seafront into a pleasure resort not only meant the end of the local fishing economy but also that the sea and the seafront, no longer understood as a commons, were opened to private use, even give the formal guarantee of free access. The new buildings and streets materially obliterated communal working and living spaces. Illegal construction invaded the seafront, causing prices to soar. Moreover, the idea of a bourgeois sea to be used for leisure and diversion was based on a rigid separation of nature and work and, as a consequence, the banishment of the lower classes.

Nevertheless, the sanitization of the lower city did not always cause the complete disappearance of preexisting realities. For example, the Pallonetto—a narrow alley on the slope of Monte Echia (San Ferdinando District) on which the majority of the *luciani*, those expelled from Santa Lucia, converged—was spared, which in turn permitted some residents to negotiate a different relationship to nature and the rest of the city and its economy. That many of these residents became successful smugglers, using old skills for new purposes, enabled them to remain profoundly connected with the sea.[79]

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Conclusion

The outcome of the aforementioned struggles is well known. The seafront was eventually sanitized, creating an impact on the urban character as well as on the economy of the city. Fishers were driven out of both Chiaia and Santa Lucia. Housing became too expensive, and no infrastructures for fishing survived. It was not possible for the fishers to remain in the new sanitized neighborhoods. However, transformation of the whole coastal area was neither painless nor peaceful; the records of the local administrations report uprisings and riots in Santa Lucia and Marinella.[80] An anonymous article published in 1884 in *Il Roma*, the local newspaper, offers an idea of the kind of social opposition that accompanied the sanitization of the waterfront: "When demolition begins to make way for new buildings, people have to be expelled without violence or tumult. The people must be driven away not by the tormentor's whip, but by the masons' pickax. Seeing themselves surrounded by all this dismantling, they go away of their own accord. . . . To beautify the Chiaia seafront, the fishers were driven out in this way, and they found somewhere to go. Can we not do the same now?[81]

In this case, as in others, we must investigate the modes of conflict and resistance to the general privatization of environmental resources in Naples.[82] As Andrew Hurley has written, the struggle for power and the physical landscape perpetually demonstrates that "the domination of natures involves and necessitates the control of human beings."[83]

Notes

This article was written while I was a visiting scholar at the Centro for Estudios Sociais (CES) at the University of Coimbra. I wish to thank the CES faculty for their kind support during my stay there. I discussed a previous version of this essay at Nancy Peluso's LandLab at the University of California, Berkeley. Many thanks to all LandLab friends including Stefania Barca, Catherine Corson, Gail Hollander, Rod Nuemann, and Nancy Peluso. Special thanks to Johannes Stahl; without his help, I would never have found many of the sources I used here. Last, but not least, I thank Mark Walters and Veronika Fukson for improving and editing my English. Of course, I take sole responsibility for any mistakes.

1. After a long period during which the city suffered an appalling reputation, the city council invested extensively in building a positive new image of Naples. The restyling of the Piazza Plebiscito, opening in front of the old Royal Palace, became the symbol of the new city. Regarding mayor Antonio Bassolino and his local government, see in English: Felia Allum and Percy Allum, "Revisiting Naples: Clientelism and Organized Crime," *Journal of Modern Italian Studies* 13 (2008): 340–65; Felia Allum and Marco Cilento, "Parties and Personalities: The Case of Antonio Bassolino, Former Mayor of Naples," *Regional and Federal Studies* 11 (2001): 1–26; in Italian, among many others, see Paolo Macry, "Bassolino, per esempio: I piccoli passi di Napoli" ("Mr. Bassolino, for Instance: Naples' Small Steps"), *Il Mulino* 2 (1998): 341–52. Specifically on the new urban renovation initiated by Bassolino, see Nicholas Dines, "Urban Renewal, Immigration, and Contested Claims to Public Space: The Case of Piazza Garibaldi in Naples," *GeoJournal* 58 (2002): 177–88.

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2. "Porto di Napoli, operazione restyling" ("The Restyling of the Naples Harbor"), *Repubblica*, April 28, 1998. Unless otherwise noted, all translations are my own.
3. "Il museo del mare nell'isola di Arturo" ("The Sea Museum on Arturo's Island"), *Repubblica*, May 7, 2000; Patrizia Capua, "Napoli apre al mare" ("Naples Opens Itself to the Sea"), *Repubblica*, May 12, 2000; Ferruccio Fabrizio, "L'emigrazione in quaranta foto per raccontare un sogno" ("Emigration, Telling a Dream through Forty Pictures"), *Repubblica*, January 22, 2000; Francesco Vastarella, "Un museo per emigranti" ("A Museum for Emigrants"), *Il Mattino*, October 10, 2002; Girolamo Imbruglia, "Città di mare senza storia la rivincita della casa-museo" (Sea Cities without History: The Revenge of the House Museum"), *Repubblica*, August 13, 2004; Salvo Iavarone, "Al porto il museo dell'emigrazione" ("An Emigration Museum at the Harbor"), *Il Roma*, August 17, 2005; Salvo Iavarone, "Il museo dell'emigrazione: Rilanciare il progetto" ("Reviving Emigration Museum Project"), *Corriere del Mezzogiorno*, April 29, 2005.
4. On the conflicting relationships between tourism and the steel plant in Bagnoli, see Salvo Ascione and Gabriella Corona, "Activités humaines et ressources naturelles à Naples au XXe siècle: L'exemple du complexe industriel de Bagnoli," in *The Modern Demon: Pollution in Urban and Industrial European Societies*, ed. Christoph Bernhardt and Geneviéve Massard-Guilbaud (Clermont-Ferrand: Presses Universitaires Blaise-Pascal, 2002), 351–76. For an overview on the urban regeneration of Bagnoli area, see Lucio Iaccarino, *La rigenerazione. Bagnoli: politiche pubbliche e società civile nella Napoli post-industriale* (Regeneration. Bagnoli: Public Policies and Civil Society in Postindustrial Naples) (Naples: L'Ancora del Mediterraneo, 2005).
5. Here I am referring to a famous novel by the Neapolitan writer Annamaria Ortese, entitled *Il mare non bagna Napoli* (1953; Turin: Einaudi, 1967). Although the literal English translation is *The Sea Does Not Touch Naples*, the book was published in English as *The Bay Is Not Naples*, trans. Frances Frenaye (London: Collins, 1955).
6. Roberto Saviano, *Gomorrah* (New York: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2007), 3–16.
7. Richard White, "'Are You an Environmentalist or Do You Work for a Living?': Work and Nature," in *Uncommon Ground: Rethinking the Human Place in Nature*, ed. William Cronon (New York: Norton, 1995), 171–85.
8. Raymond Williams, "Ideas of Nature," in *Problems in Materialism and Culture* (London: Verso, 1980), 78.
9. This is the main subject in Theodore Steinberg's *Slide Mountain; or, The Folly of Owning Nature* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1995).
10. Theodore Steinberg, *Down to Earth: Nature's Role in American History* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2002), xii.
11. Steinberg, *Down to Earth*, xi.
12. Among others: Rob Van Ginkel, "The Abundant Sea and Her Fates: Texelia Oystermen and the Marine Commons, 1700 to 1932," *Comparative Studies in Society and History* 38 (1996): 218–42; Alvaro Díaz de la Paz, "Ecologia y pesca en Canarias: Una aproximación historica a la relacion hombre-recurso" ("Ecology and Fishery in the Canary Islands: A Historical Approach to the Relationships between Humans and Natural Resources"), *Ayer* 11 (1993): 207–32; Jesús Giráldez-Rivero, "El conflicto por los nuevos artes: Conservacionismo o conservadurismo en la pesca gallega de comienzos del sieglo XX," ("Conflict over the New Arts: Conservationism and Conservatism in the Fishery in the Galicia Region at the Beginning of the Twentieth Century"), *Ayer* 11 (1993): 233–51; James M. Acheson, "Anthropology of Fishing," *Annual Review of Anthropology* 10 (1981): 275–316.

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13. Theodore Steinberg, "Down to Earth: Nature, Agency, and Power in History," *American Historical Review* 107 (2002), quoted from www.historycooperative.org, section 40 (last accessed May 18, 2010). See also Steinberg, *Down to Earth*, 157–61.
14. Two classics on this rhetoric are Leo Marx, *The Machine in the Garden: Technology and the Pastoral Ideal in America* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1964); and David E. Nye, *America as Second Creation: Technology and Narratives of New Beginnings* (Cambridge, MA: MIT Press, 2003).
15. Karl A. Mayer, *Vita popolare a Napoli nell'età romantica* (Folklife in Naples during the Romantic Age) (Bari: Gius. Laterza e Figli, 1948), 6.
16. Nelson Moe has analyzed the construction and use of the expression *paradise of devils* in *The View from Vesuvius: Italian Culture and the Southern Question* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2002), 46–59.
17. Alessandra Broccolini, "Scene da un 'patrimonio': Identità urbane in un quartiere della 'vecchia Napoli'" ("Pictures from a 'Heritage': Urban Identities in an Old Neapolitan Neighborhood"), www.storiaurbana.it/biennale/Relazioni/B22BROCC.doc *(last accessed May 18, 2010).*
18. About the picturesque and southern Italy, see Moe, *View from Vesuvius*, 2.
19. On Matilde Serao, in English, see Anthony M. Gisolfi, *The Essential Matilde Serao* (New York: Las Americas, 1968); Ursula Fanning, *Gender Meets Genre: Woman as Subject in the Fictional Universe of Matilde Serao* (Dublin: Irish Academic Press, 2002).
20. Matilde Serao, *Il ventre di Napoli* (Milan: Treves, 1884), 54.
21. See, for instance, descriptions of the traveler and German literary critic Fernand Gregorovius, *Napoli* (Rome: U. Carboni, 1909), or the sea stories of the naval official and writer Carlo Bruno published as *Storie marinare di Napoli* (*Maritime Stories from Naples*) (Naples: Tip. La Vittoria, 1928).
22. Santa Lucia fishers were traditionally devoted to the Bourbon dynasty that ruled southern Italy until the unification of the country in 1860. According to popular tales, several kings of Naples used to mix with the crowd in Santa Lucia, selling the fish they had caught and discussing fishing with local fishers. Another story claims that King Ferdinando II asked to be nursed only by sailors from Santa Lucia when he became deathly ill during a sea trip. See Vittorio Palliotti, *Santa Lucia* (Naples: Azienda di Soggiorno e Turismo, 1979), 61–69.
23. This image has been handed down in many testimonies, such as Luigi Coppola, "Santa Lucia," and Carlo T. Dalbono, "Marinai, navigatori, pescatori, rematori e pescivendoli" ("Sailors, Fishers, Rowers, and Fishmongers"), in *Usi e costumi di Napoli e contorni* (*Uses and Costumes of Naples*), ed. Francesco De Bourcard (Milan: Longanesi e C., 1955), 1–13, 23–38; Renato Fucini, *Napoli a occhio nudo* (*Naples through the Naked Eye*) (1878; Turin: Einaudi, 1976), 51; Giovanni E. Bideri, *Passeggiata per Napoli e contorni: Usi e costumi* (*Walking through Naples and its Surroundings*) (Naples: Giuseppe Cattaneo, 1857), 130–31.
24. On the *Illustrazione italiana*, see Moe, *View from Vesuvius*, 198.
25. Carlo del Balzo, "Santa Lucia," *Illustrazione italiana*, May 14, 1882, 20. The *acquafrescaio*—literally "cold water seller"—was quite a popular occupation in Naples until recently; Santa Lucia (the name of a street that gives name to an area) was the homeland of this activity because it was the source of this mineral water. Actually, this mineral water should be studied as a commons for the people of Santa Lucia, who had informal, exclusive access to it. With the sanitization of the 1880s and the opening of a private thermal resort in 1890, this commons suffered the first blow. With the last cholera epidemic occurring in Naples in 1973, the sale of this mineral water was prohibited.

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See Palliotti, *Santa Lucia*, 55–59. For an inventory of sources on mineral water in the Neapolitan area, see Stefania Barca, "Per una storia delle risorse termominerali in Campania" ("Contribute to the History of Thermal and Mineral Waters of Campania Region"), *Istituto di Studi sulle Società del Mediterraneo—Working Papers* 20 (2003).

26. Just a few years earlier, in the 1870s, the same magazine had published an article, "The Fishmonger of Mergellina," lamenting the imminent loss of both fishmongers and their environment: "Next year there will be no more beach, no more fishmonger!" Quoted in Moe, *View from Vesuvius*, 350.
27. Carlo del Balzo, "Napoli i quartieri bassi" ("Naples' Lowest Districts"), *Illustrazione italiana*, May 30, 1880, 22.
28. Frank M. Snowden, *Naples in the Time of Cholera 1884–1911* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1995), 15.
29. The two medical reports are Salvatore de Renzi, *Sul colera morbus* (*On Cholera*) (Naples: n.p., 1836); and Marino Turchi, *Sull'igiene pubblica della città di Napoli* (*On Public Hygiene in Naples*) (Naples: Fratelli Morano, 1861).
30. Giancarlo Alisio, *Napoli nell'Ottocento* (*Naples during the Nineteenth Century*) (Naples: Electa Napoli, 1992), 100.
31. Annalucia Forti Messina, *Società ed epidemia. Il colera a Napoli nel 1836* (*Society and Epidemics: Cholera in 1836 Naples*) (Milan: Franco Angeli, 1979), 23.
32. Snowden, *Naples in the Time of Cholera*, 18. Porto, Mercato, and Pendino were only three of the five maritime boroughs of the city; of the others, Chiaia had a much stronger upper-class identity and a lower population density, while San Ferdinando had a very diverse population, with members of the aristocracy and poor people living in the same buildings on different floors. In all, according to Snowden, about three hundred thousand people lived in lower Naples, in an area of 511,873 square meters.
33. On this point, we should consider two things. First, there were also other districts affected by the epidemics, but here I want to stress the fact that the maritime neighborhoods have always been among the most infected in the city. Second, since the statistics were collected by district, we do not have the data concerning some fisher enclaves in the districts of Chiaia and San Ferdinando. However, during the nineteenth century, the debate on the hygienic and social conditions of the city and the subsequent sanitization plans greatly affected those areas.
34. Martin V. Melosi, *The Sanitary City: Urban Infrastructure in America from Colonial Times to the Present* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2000), 107.
35. On fishers and the urban environment in Italy, see Marco Armiero, "La risorsa contesa: Norme, conflitti, tecnologie tra i pescatori meridionali" ("The Contested Resource: Rules, Conflicts, and Technology among the Southern Italian Fishers"), *Meridiana* 31 (1998): 179–206; Marco Armiero and Stefania Barca, "Nature without Capitalism: The Commons in Modern Italy, Nineteenth to Twentieth Centuries," paper presented at the Second International Conference of the European Society for Environmental History, Prague, September 6, 2003.
36. Patrick Joyce, "Maps, Blood, and the City: The Governance of the Social in Nineteenth-Century Britain," in *The Social in Question: New Bearings in History and the Social Sciences*, ed. Joyce (London: Routledge, 2002), 99, 106. The expression *Haussmann method* is from Frederick Engels, *The Housing Question* (Moscow: Progress Publishers, 1970), here quoted from the online version edited by David J. Romagnolo, 68–69.
37. The *Risanamento* (Law No. 2892, January 15, 1885) was the name given to the plan of the city's sanitization. Briefly, the main aim of the *Risanamento* was to widen the narrow streets

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of the lower city by demolishing old buildings and creating large boulevards. According to Giuseppe Russo, the *Risanamento* planned to sanitize about 980,000 square meters, amounting to 25 percent of the entire urban space. See Russo, *Napoli come città*, 309.

38. Renato Fucini, *Taccuino di viaggio a Napoli e dintorni nel 1877* (*Naples and Its Surroundings in 1877: A Travel Notebook*), ed. Toni Iermano (Cava de' Tirreni: Mephite, 2003), 57–58.
39. Jessie White Mario, *La miseria di Napoli* (*The Misery in Naples*) (Florence: Le Monnier, 1877), 13, quoted here from the electronic version at www.liberliber.it (last accessed May 18, 2010). Historically a *fondaco* was a place for storing large amounts of wares; in nineteenth-century Naples, those cellars and grottoes, symbolic of city decay, became the homes of poor people.
40. Atti del Consiglio Comunale di Napoli (Proceedings of Naples City Council), *Relazione de Bonis sul bonificamento* (*de Bonis's Report on Sanitization*), October 3 (F. Giannini, 1884), 700.
41. Atti del Consiglio Comunale di Napoli, *Councilor Arlotta's Report*, October 3 (F. Giannini, 1884), 679.
42. Ibid.
43. Erik Swyngedouw and Nikolas C. Heynen, "Urban Political Ecology, Justice, and the Politics of Scale," *Antipode* 35 (2003): 901.
44. Matthew Klingle, "Changing Spaces: Nature, Property, and Power in Seattle, 1880–1945," *Journal of Urban History* 32 (2006): 199.
45. Achille Costa, *La pesca nel golfo di Napoli: Lavoro presentato al Reale Istituto di Incoraggiamento in Giugno 1870* (*Fishery in the Bay of Naples: Paper Presented to the Royal Institute for Encouragement in June 1870*) (Naples: Tip. G. Nobile, 1871), 2.
46. Leonardo Dorotea, *Sommario storico dell'alieutica che si esercita nelle provincie meridionali e della legislazione correlativa alla stessa* (*Historical Overview on Fishery Activities and Legislation in Southern Italy*) (Naples: F. Vitale, 1863), 65.
47. David Levi Morenos, *Il "proletariato peschereccio" nel problema adriatico* (*"Proletarian Fishers" in the Context of the Adriatic Issue*) (Rome: Tip. Industria e Lavoro 1904), 9.
48. Armiero, "La risorsa contesa" and "Nature without Capitalism."
49. Joan Martinez Alier, "Temas de historia económico-ecológica" ("Topics in Economic and Environmental History"), *Ayer* 11 (1993): 39.
50. Van Ginkel, "Abundant Sea and Her Fates"; Díaz de la Paz, "Ecologia y pesca en Canarias"; and Giráldez-Rivero, "El conflicto por los nuevos artes."
51. The documentation on this confraternity is found in the Archivio di Stato di Napoli, Ministero di Agricoltura, Industria e Commercio (National Archives in Naples, Ministry of Agriculture, Industry, and Commerce Papers), folder 289.
52. Some violent episodes were reported in Gesualdo Police, "Sulla questione odierna della pesca con le sorgenti luminose nel golfo di Napoli," ("The Current Issue of Fishing with Artificial Lights in the Bay of Naples") *Neptunia: Rivista della marina peschereccia nazionale* 28 (1911): 2.
53. Benedetto Croce, *Storie e leggende napoletane* (*Neapolitan Stories and Legends*) (1919; Milan: Adelphi, 1990), 258.
54. Swyngedouw and Heynen, "Urban Political Ecology," 903.
55. Atti del Consiglio Comunale di Napoli (Proceedings of Naples City Council), 1873, Sessione di primavera (spring session), May 10, 1873, *Discorso del consigliere Cenni* (*Councillor Cenni's Speech*) (Naples: F. Giannini, 1874), 211.
56. On the urban transformation of the Chiaia seafront and, in general, of the coastline,

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see Giancarlo Alisio, *Il lungomare* (*The Waterfront*) (Naples: Electa, 1989); Benedetto Gravagnuolo and Giuseppe Gravagnuolo, *Chiaia* (Naples: Electa, 1990); Monica Michelino, "Il borgo di Chiaia e la sua villa: Evoluzione storica" ("Chiaia and Its Villa: The Historical Evolution"), in *La villa reale di Chiaja: Storia e futuro* (*Chiaia's Royal Villa: History and Future*), ed. Ferdinando Jannuzzi (Naples: Giannini e Figli, 1997); Ferdinando Jannuzzi, "La villa di Chiaia, il mare e la città" ("Chiaia's Villa, the Sea and the City") in Jannuzzi, *La villa reale di Chiaja*, 89–107.

57. Benedetto Croce, "La villa di Chiaia," *Napoli mobilissima* 3 (1893): 36.
58. Atti del Consiglio Comunale di Napoli, *Discorso del consigliere Cenni*, 212. On property rights over Naples' lido, see F. Ruggiero, *Secondo discorso intorno alla questione di proprietà del lido del mare che confina con la città di Napoli disputata tra il demanio e il municipio napoletano* (Discourse on the Property Rights over the Neapolitan Waterfront) (Naples: Stabilimento Tipografico dell'Ancora, 1869).
59. Carrie Tirado Bramen, "The Urban Picturesque and the Spectacle of Americanization," *American Quarterly* 52 (2000): 447.
60. In the 1950s, fishing boats were still mentioned alongside bathing houses in Touring Club guides; Touring Club International, *Marine d'Italia* (*Italian Seascapes*) (Verona: A. Mondatori, 1950), 142–57.
61. Atti del Consiglio Comunale di Napoli (Proceedings of Naples City Council), 1873, Sessione di primavera (spring session), May 10, 1873, *Discorso del consigliere Cellammare* (*Councillor Cellammare's Speech*) (Naples: F. Giannini, 1874), 214.
62. Ibid., 217; Atti del Consiglio Comunale di Napoli (Proceedings of Naples City Council), 1875, Sessione straordinaria (extraordinary session), July, 10, 1879, *Discorso del consigliere Florenzano* (*Councilor Florenzano's Speech*) (Naples: F. Giannini, 1879), 542.
63. Following a series of scandals involving the local government, an Inquiry Commission was established in November 1900. It was called the Saredo Committee, named after its chair, Senator Giuseppe Saredo.
64. *Regia commissione d'inchiesta per Napoli presieduta da Giuseppe Saredo: Relazione sulla amministrazione comunale* (*Royal Commitee of Inquiry on Naples Chaired by Giuseppe Saredo: Report on the Municipal Government*), ed. Sergio Marotta (Naples: Vivarium, n.d.), 437–38.
65. Ibid., 723.
66. Marcella Marmo, "Speculazione edilizia e credito mobiliare a Napoli nella congiuntura degli anni ottanta," ("Real Estate Speculation and Credit in 1880s Naples") *Quaderni storici* 32 (1976): 678. In this article Marmo offered some ideas about the origins of the financial backing of the *Risanamento* plan; in 1888 a group of banks and societies from northern Italy (Banca Generale, Credito Mobiliare, Societá Generale Immobilare, Banca Subalpina, Banca di Torino, ditta Marsiglia) constituted the Risanamento Society with 30 million lire (659).
67. This survey is quoted in *Regia commissione*, 725.
68. Salvatore Di Giacomo, *Nuova guida di Napoli, Pompei, Ercolano, Stabia, Campi Flegrei, Caserta* (*New Travel Guide to Naples, Pompei, Ercolano, Stabia, Campi Flegrei, and Caserta*) (Naples: A. Morano, 1913), 379.
69. "Passeggiate napoletane" ("Walking in Naples"), in *Illustrazione italiana*, October 16, 1892, 42.
70. Pasquale Villari, "La questione di Napoli" ("The Problem of Naples"), *La nuova antologia* 24 (1884): 690.
71. *Regia commissione*, 790.
72. Russo, *Napoli come città*, 393–94. Migliaro went to live in Santa Lucia to paint a series of

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landscapes for the San Martino Museum; see Federica Coscino, "La festa della Nzegna," ("The Nzegna Carnival") (Degree thesis, Istituto Universitario Suor Orsola Benincasa, 2002).

73. This phrase is quoted by Giuseppe Russo in his *Napoli come città*, 393.
74. Raffaele Viviani, "I pescatori" ("The Fishers") in *I capolavori* (*Masterpieces*) (Naples: Guida 1992), 402.
75. "Tre gghiuorne 'e freva! . . . Bella guapparia! / Vene 'o ngigniere, te tira 'e mmesure, / te caccia 'e scartapelle mmiez' 'a via / e manna 'e pressa p' 'e fravecature! / E addò jarrammo cummarella mia? / Ccà fanno tutte case p' 'e signure! / Che ve pozza venì na malatia! / Nce puzzate murì, sott'a stì." Quoted here from Guido Donatone, "Il Risanamento: Lo sventramento del quartiere angioino di Napoli alla fine dell'ottocento" ("The Risanamento: The Gutting of the Neapolitan Angioini Neighborhoods at the End of Nineteenth Century"), in *Appello all'UNESCO per la salvezza del centro storico di Napoli patrimonio dell'Umanità*, (*Appeal to UNESCO to Protect Downtown Naples*), ed. Francesco Iannello and Raffaele Rusciano (Naples: Assise di Palazzo Marigliano, 2006), 51.
76. Cesare De Seta, *Napoli* (Rome-Bari: Laterza, 1981), 265.
77. Steinberg, "Down to Earth," 810–14.
78. Joanna L. Dyl, "The War on Rats versus the Right to Keep Chickens: Plague and the Paving of San Francisco, 1907–1908," in *The Nature of Cities*, ed. Andrew C. Isenberg (Rochester, NY: University of Rochester Press, 2006), 38–61.
79. Only after World War II, and especially in the 1970s, did most of the *luciani* of the Pallonetto turn from fishing to smuggling. See Alessandra Broccolini, "Da pescatori a scafisti: Trasformazioni di una economia tradizionale" ("From Fishers to Smugglers: Changes in a Traditional Economy"), in *Il borgo di Santa Lucia: Trasformazione urbana e tradizioni* (*Santa Lucia District: Urban Transformation and Tradition*), ed. Broccolini (Bracigliano, Salerno: CECOM, 1999), 39–40.
80. Alida Clemente, "La città e il mare: Comunità pescherecce e trasformazione urbana nella Napoli contemporanea" ("The City and the Sea: Fishing Communities and Urban Transformations in Contemporary Naples"), *Società e storia* 97 (2002): 20, 24.
81. *Il Roma*, 26 October 1884.
82. Gabriella Corona, "La sostenibilità urbana a Napoli: Caratteri strutturali e dinamiche storiche," ("Urban Sustainability in Naples: Structural Characters and Historical Dynamics") *Meridiana* 42 (2001): 39.
83. Andrew Hurley, *Environmental Inequalities: Class, Race, and Industrial Pollution in Gary, Indiana, 1945–1980* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1995), 182.

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